Lecture Notes

Basic Algebraic Structures

Appendix - *Integers*

Zeki Can Özkanlı

19 February 2024

METU Mathematics ‘22

CONTENTS

1 APPENDIX I - Integers **3**

1.1 Divisibility 4

1.2 Prime Factors 5

1.3 Congruence of Integers 7

CHAPTER

ONE

APPENDIX I - INTEGERS

1.1 Divisibility

In this chapter, our main goal is to obtain division algorithm. To achieve this we need an important consequence of the induction postulate, known as the Well Ordering Theorem.

Lemma 1.1 (Least Positive Integer) .
The integer 1 is the least positive integer.

Theorem 1.1 (The Well Ordering Principle) .
Every nonempty set S of positive integers contains a least element. That is, there is an element $m \in S$ such that $m \leq x$ for all $x \in S$.

Proof. Let S be a nonempty set of positive integers. If $1 \in S$, then $1 \leq x$ for all $x \in S$, by Lemma 1.1.

Consider now the case where $1 \notin S$, and let L be the set of all positive integers p such that $p < x$ for all $x \in S$. That is,

$$L = \{p \in \mathbb{Z}^+ \mid p < x,\ \forall x \in S\}$$

Since $1 \notin S$, Lemma 1.1 assures us that $1 \in L$. We shall show that there is a positive integer p_0 such that $p_0 \in L$ and $p_0 + 1 \notin L$. Suppose this is not the case. Then we have that $p \in L$ implies $p + 1 \in L$ (since $(\neg a \vee b) \iff (a \implies b)$). Now, since $1 \in L$, and $p \in L$ implies $p + 1 \in L$, then by Induction Postulate $L = \mathbb{Z}^+$. But this contradicts the fact that S is nonempty (note that $L \cap S =$, by definition of L). Therefore there is a p_0 such that $p_0 \in L$ and $p_0 + 1 \notin L$. Now, we must show that $p_0 + 1 \in S$. We have $p_0 < x$ for all $x \in S$, hence, $p_0 + 1 \leq x$ for all $x \in S$. If $p_0 + 1 < x$ were always true, then $p_0 + 1$ would be in L. Hence, $p_0 + 1 = x$ for some $x \in S$ and $m = p_0 + 1$ is the required least element in S. ■

Def 1.1 (Divisor) .
Let a and b be integers. We say that a **divides** b if there is an integer c such that $b = ac$. If a divides b, we write $a|b$.

Theorem 1.2 .
The only divisors of 1 are 1 and -1.

Proof. Suppose a is a divisor of 1. Then $1 = ac$ for some integer c. The equation $1 = ac$ requires $a \neq 0$, so either $a \in \mathbb{Z}^+$ or $-a \in \mathbb{Z}^-$. Consider first the case where $a \in \mathbb{Z}^+$. Then this requires $c \in \mathbb{Z}^+$. So we have $1 \leq a$ and $1 \leq c$, by Lemma 1.1. Then,

$$\begin{aligned} 1 < a &\implies 1 \cdot c < a \cdot c \\ &\implies c < 1 \qquad\qquad \text{(since } ac = 1\text{)}. \end{aligned}$$

But this contradicts with that $1 \leq c$. Thus, $1 = a$ is the only possibility when $a \in \mathbb{Z}^+$.

Similar arguments can be done for $-a \in Z^-$.

Therefore, combining the cases where $a \in \mathbb{Z}^+$ and where $-a \in \mathbb{Z}^-$, we have shown that either $a = 1$ or $a = -1$ if a is a divisor of 1. ■

Theorem 1.3 (The Division Algorithm) .
Let a and b be integers with $b > 0$. Then there exist unique integers q and r such that

$$a = bq + r \text{ with } 0 \leq r < b.$$

Proof. (Existence). Let S be the set of all integers x that can be written in the form $x = a - bn$ for $n \in \mathbb{Z}$, and let S' denote the set of all nonnegative integers in S. Then the set S' is nonempty. If $0 \in S'$, we have $a - bq = 0$ for some q, and hence $a = bq + 0$. If $0 \notin S'$, then by Well Ordering Principle (1.1) S' contains a least element $r = a - bq$, and hence $a = bq + r$, where $r > 0$. Now,

$$\begin{aligned} r - b &= a - bq - b \\ &= a - b(q + 1), \end{aligned}$$

and hence $r - b \in S$. Since r is the least element in S' and $r - b < r$, then $r - b$ must be negative. That is, $r - b < 0$, hence $r < b$. Therefore, there exist such q and r.

(Uniqueness). Suppose that $a = bq_1 + r_1$ and that $a = bq_2 + r_2$, where $0 \leq r_1 < b$ and $0 \leq r_1 < b$. Without loss of generality, we may assume that $r_1 \leq r_2$. This means, $0 \leq r_2 - r_1 \leq r_2 < b$. However, we also have

$$\begin{aligned} 0 \leq r_2 - r_1 &= (a - bq_2) - (a - bq_1) \\ &= b(q_1 - q_2). \end{aligned}$$

That is, $r_2 - r_1$ is nonnegative multiple of b that is less than b. Thus, $r_2 - r_1 = 0$, and hence $r_1 = r_2$. Also, it follow that $bq_1 = bq_2$, where $b > 0$. This implies that $q_1 = q_2$. Therefore, we have shown that $r_1 = r_2$ and that $q_1 = q_2$, and this shows that r and q are unique. Therefore the theorem. ■

Theorem 1.4 (The Strengthened Division Algorithm) .
Let a and b be integers with $b > 0$. Then there exist unique integers q and r such that

$$a = bq + r \text{ with } 0 \leq r < |b|.$$

Proof. Left as an exercise. ■

1.2 Prime Factors

Def 1.2 (Greatest Common Divisor (GCD)) .
An integer d is a **greatest common divisor** of a and b if the following conditions are hold:

1. $d \in \mathbb{Z}^+$
2. $d \mid a$ and $d \mid b$
3. $(c \mid a) \wedge (c \mid b) \implies c \mid d$.

Theorem 1.5 .
Let a and b be integers, at least one of them is not 0. Then there exists a unique greatest common divisor d of a and b. Moreover, d can be written as a linear combination of a and b, that is,

$$d = am + bn$$

for $m, n \in \mathbb{Z}$, and d is the smallest positive integer that can be written in this form.

Proof. (Existence). Let a and b be integers, at least one of them is not 0. If $b = 0$, then $a \neq 0$, and hence $|a| > 0$. It is obvious that $d = |a|$ is a gcd of a and b in this case, and either $d = a \cdot (1) + b \cdot (0)$ or $d = a \cdot (-1) + b \cdot (0)$.

Suppose now that $b \neq 0$. Consider the set S of all integers that can be written in the form $ax + by$ for some integers x and y, and let S^+ be the set of all positive integers in S. The set S contains $b = a \cdot (0) + b \cdot (1)$ and $-b = a \cdot (0) + b \cdot (-1)$, hence S^+ is not empty. Then by the Well Ordering Principle 1.1, S^+ has a least element d,

$$d = am + bn.$$

We have d positive, and we shall show that d is a gcd of a and b. By the division algorithm 1.3, there are integers q and r such that

$$a = dq + r \text{ with } 0 \leq r < d.$$

Then,

$$\begin{aligned} r &= a - dq \\ &= a - (am + bn)q \\ &= a(1 - mq) + b(-nq). \end{aligned}$$

Thus, r is in S, and $0 \leq r < d$. By choice of d as the least element in S^+, $r = 0$, and hence $d|a$. Similarly, it can be shown that $d|b$. Now, suppose that $c|a$ and $c|b$. Then $a = ch$ and $b = ck$, for some integers h and k. Hence,

$$\begin{aligned} d &= am + bn \\ &= chm + ckn \\ &= c(hm + kn), \end{aligned}$$

which shows that $c|d$. Hence, by definition 1.2, $d = am + bn$ is the greatest common divisor of a and b. And from the choice of d as least element of S^+ that d is the smallest positive integer that can be written in this form.

(Uniqueness). Left as an exercise. ■

Theorem 1.6 (The Euclidean Algorithm) .
Let a and b be nonnegative integers. Then $gcd(a, b) = r_n$ is the last nonzero remainder after the following successive process:

$$\begin{aligned} a &= bq_0 + r_1, & 0 \leq r_1 < b \\ b &= r_1 q_1 + r_2, & 0 \leq r_2 < r_1 \\ r_1 &= r_2 q_2 + r_3, & 0 \leq r_3 < r_2 \\ &\vdots \\ r_k &= r_{k+1} q_{k+1} + r_{k+2} & 0 \leq r_{k+2} < r_{k+1}. \end{aligned}$$

Proof. ? - Why we always end up with 0, but not the other nonnegative integers. ■

Def 1.3 (Coprime) .
Two integers a and b are called **coprime** or **relatively prime** if their greatest common divisor is 1.

Theorem 1.7 .
If a and b are relatively prime and $a \mid bc$, then $a \mid c$.

Proof. Suppose that $gcd(a, b) = 1$ and $a|bc$. Since $gcd(a, b) = 1$, there exist integers m and n such that $1 = am + bn$, by theorem 1.5. And since $a|bc$, then by

definition there exists an integer q such that $bc = aq$. Now,

$$\begin{aligned} 1 = am + bn &\implies c = amc + bnc \\ &\implies c = amc + aqn \text{ since } bc = aq \\ &\implies c = a(mc + qn) \\ &\implies a|c. \end{aligned}$$

Therefore the theorem. ■

Def 1.4 (Prime Integer) .
An integer p is called **prime integer** if $p > 1$ and the only divisors of p are ± 1 and $\pm p$.

Remark .
Note that the condition $p > 1$ makes p positive and ensures that $p \neq 1$. The exclusion of 1 from the set of primes makes possible the statement of Unique Factorization Theorem.

Lemma 1.2 (Euclid's Lemma) .
If p is a prime and $p|ab$, then either $p|a$ or $p|b$.

Proof. Suppose that p is a prime and $p|ab$. If $p|a$, then there is nothing to show. Suppose then that $p \not| a$. This implies that $gcd(p, a) = 1$, since the only positive divisors of p are 1 and p. Then by theorem 1.7, $p|b$. Therefore the theorem. ■

Corollary 1.7.1 .
If p is a prime and $p|(a_1 a_2 \dots a_n)$, then p divides some a_i.

Theorem 1.8 (Unique Factorization Theorem) .
Every positive integer n either is 1 or can be expressed as a product of prime integers, and this factorization is unique, except for the order of the factors.

Proof. (Existence). Let P_n be the statement that either $n = 1$ or n can be expressed as a product of primes. We shall prove that the statement P_n is true for all $n \in Z^+$ by the Second Principle of Finite Induction. P_1 is trivially true. Suppose that P_m is true for all positive integers $m < k$. If k is a prime, then k is a product with one prime factor, and hence P_k is true. Suppose k is not a prime. Then $k = ab$, where neither a or b is 1. Therefore, $1 < a < k$ and $1 < b < k$. By the induction hypothesis, P_a and P_b is true. That is, $a = p_1 p_2 \dots p_r$ and $b = q_1 q_2 \dots q_r$, for primes p_i and q_i. Then,

$$\begin{aligned} k &= ab \\ &= p_1 p_2 \dots p_r \cdot q_1 q_2 \dots q_r, \end{aligned}$$

and k is thereby expressed as a product of primes. thus P_k is true, and therefore P_n is true for all positive integers n. (Uniqueness). Suppose that $n = p_1 p_2 \dots p_t$ and $n = q_1 q_2 \dots q_v$ are factorizations of n as products of prime factors p_i and q_j. Then,

$$p_1 p_2 \dots p_t = q_1 q_2 \dots q_v,$$

So $p_1|(q_1 q_2 \dots q_v)$. By corollary 1.7.1, $p_1|q_j$ for some j, and without loss of generality we may assume $j = 1$. However, p_1 and q_1 are primes, so $p_1|q_1$ implies $q_1 = p_1$. This gives us,

$$p_1 p_2 \dots p_t = p_1 q_2 \dots q_v,$$

and therefore,

$$p_2 \dots p_t = q_2 \dots q_v.$$

By repeating with this process we have finally obtain,

$$p_t = q_t \dots q_v.$$

Since the only positive factors of p_t are 1 and p_t, and since q_j is prime, this means that there must be only one q_j on the right-hand side. Hence $v = t$ and $q_t = p_t$. This completes the proof. ■

Theorem 1.9 (Euclid's Theorem on Primes) .
There are infinitely many primes.

Proof. We shall give the proof by contradiction. Suppose that there are a finite number n of primes, $p_1, p_2, \dots p_n$. Now, consider the integer $m = p_1 p_2 \dots p_n + 1$. It is clear that the remainder in the division of m by any prime p_i is 1, so each p_i is not a factor of m. Thus, there are two possibilities, either m is itself a prime, or it has a prime factor that is different from every one of the p_i. In either case, we have a prime integer that was not in the list. Therefore, there are more than n primes and this completes the proof. ■

1.3 Congruence of Integers

Def 1.5 .
Let n be a positive integer, $n > 1$. For integers x and y, x is said to be **congruent** to y **modulo** n if $x - y$ is a multiple of n, and we write

$$x \equiv y \pmod{n}.$$

Remark .
Note that $x \equiv y \pmod{n} \iff x - y = nq$ for some $q \in \mathbb{Z}$.

Theorem 1.10 .
The relation of congruence modulo n is an equivalence relation on $\mathbb{Z}$.

Reflexive.

$x \equiv x \pmod{n}$ since $x - x = (n)(0)$.

Symmetric.

$$\begin{aligned} x \equiv y \pmod{n} &\implies x - y = nq \quad \exists q \in \mathbb{Z} \\ &\implies y - x = n(-q), \ -q \in \mathbb{Z} \\ &\implies y \equiv x \pmod{n}. \end{aligned}$$

Transitive.

$$\begin{aligned} x \equiv y \pmod{n} \text{ and } \quad & y \equiv z \pmod{n} \\ &\implies x - y = nq, \, y - z = nk \\ &\exists q, k \in \mathbb{Z} \\ &\implies x - z = x - y + y - z \\ &= n(q + k), , \, q + k \in \mathbb{Z} \\ &x \equiv z \pmod{n}. \end{aligned}$$

Remark .
Remember that any equivalence relation, the equivalence classes for congruence modulo n form a *partition* of $\mathbb{Z}$; that is they separate $\mathbb{Z}$ into mutually disjoint subsets. These subsets are called **congruence classes**. For example, when $n = 4$, the congruence classes appears as:

$$\begin{aligned} [0] &= \{\ldots, \quad -4, \quad 0, \quad 4, \quad \ldots\} \\ [1] &= \{\ldots, \quad -5, \quad 1, \quad 5, \quad \ldots\} \\ [2] &= \{\ldots, \quad -6, \quad 2, \quad 6, \quad \ldots\} \\ [3] &= \{\ldots, \quad -7, \quad 3, \quad 7, \quad \ldots\} \end{aligned}$$

Theorem 1.11 .
If $a \equiv b \pmod{n}$ and x is any integer, then $a + x \equiv b + x \pmod{n}$ and $ax \equiv bx \pmod{n}$.

Proof. Left as an exercise. ■

Remark .
We can use cancellation on addition but not on multiplication. By this I mean,

$$a + x \equiv a + y \pmod{n} \implies x \equiv y \pmod{n},$$

but

$$ax \equiv ay \pmod{n} \not\implies x \equiv y \pmod{n}.$$

The second one can be easily shown by giving a counter-example.

Theorem 1.12 (Cancellation Law) .
If $ax \equiv ay \pmod{n}$ and $gcd(a, n) = 1$,
then $x \equiv y \pmod{n}$.

Proof. Suppose $ax \equiv ay \pmod{n}$ and $gcd(a, n) = 1$. Then,

$$\begin{aligned} ax \equiv ay \pmod{n} &\implies n|(ax - ay) \\ &\implies n|a(x - y) \\ &\implies n|(x - y) \text{ by Theorem 1.7} \\ &\implies x \equiv y \pmod{n}. \end{aligned}$$

This completes the proof. ■

Theorem 1.13 (Substitution Properties) .
Suppose $a \equiv b \pmod{n}$ and $c \equiv d \pmod{n}$. Then, $a + c \equiv b + d \pmod{n}$ and $ac \equiv bd \pmod{n}$.

Proof. Left as an exercise. ■

sf. 116

BIBLIOGRAPHY